

Unit 6: Optimization

Chapter 14 in “Statistical Computing with R”

Anna Ly

Department of Mathematical and Computational Sciences
University of Toronto Mississauga

March 16, 2026

1. Introduction
2. `Optimize()` and `Optim()`
3. Newton-Raphson Method
4. EM Algorithm

Introduction

- You've seen optimization methods before: the MLE.
- We'll discuss the following (non-exhaustive list):
 - R's standard `optimize()` function.
 - R's `optim()` function, and commonly used methods (Nelder-Mead, BFGS, L-BFGS-B, SANN, Brent).
 - Newton Raphson.
 - EM Algorithm.

Optimize() and Optim()

Optimize()

- According to the documentation, the method used is a combination of golden section search and successive parabolic interpolation to find when the **maximum** occurs.
- Unfortunately, the source code for `optimize()` is actually written in C! See [here!](#) (Click link). Same goes for `optim()`.
- In the interest of time, this discussion focuses on how to use `optimize()` and `optim()` rather than their underlying implementation.
- This function efficiently locates the maximum of one-dimensional functions.

Optimize()

Example

Use `optimize()` to maximise this function with respect to x :

$$f(x) = \frac{\log(1 + \log(x))}{\log(1 + x)}$$

Solution. Consult the R code.

Example

Recall this practice question: consider the Pareto distribution:

$$f_X(x) = \frac{\alpha\beta^\alpha}{x^{\alpha+1}}, \quad x > \beta.$$

Let $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ be a random sample from a Pareto distribution where $\beta = 2$, and we want to estimate α . Derive the MLE for α . Then, use `optimize()` to do it for us.

Solution.

$$L(\alpha | \mathbf{X}) = \alpha^n 2^{2n} \prod_{i=1}^n x_i^{-(\alpha+1)}$$

$$l(\alpha | \mathbf{X}) = n \ln(\alpha) + \alpha n \ln(2) - (\alpha + 1) \sum_{i=1}^n \ln(x_i)$$

$$\frac{d l(\alpha | \mathbf{X})}{d\alpha} = \frac{n}{\alpha} + n \ln(2) - \sum_{i=1}^n \ln(x_i)$$

$$0 \stackrel{\text{set}}{=} \frac{n}{\alpha} + n \ln(2) - \sum_{i=1}^n \ln(x_i)$$

$$\hat{\alpha}_{MLE} = \frac{n}{\sum_{i=1}^n \ln(x_i) - n \ln(2)}$$

Optim()

`optim()` is more popular than `optimize()` because you can use this for multi-dimensional problems and can accommodate a wide variety of methods:

1. Nelder-Mead
2. BFGS (Broyden-Fletcher-Goldfarb-Shanno)
3. CG (Conjugate gradient)
4. L-BFGS-B (L = Limited-memory, B = Bound-constrained)
5. SANN (Simulated-Annealing)
6. Brent; one-dimension only, same as `optimize()`.

These methods are graduate-level topics, but they are readily accessible through `optim()`. Note that by default, `optim()` minimises; to obtain the maximum, negate the objective function. The following example compares their performance across methods.

Example

1. Derive the likelihood function $L(\hat{\theta}) = L(\hat{\alpha}, \hat{\lambda})$ for $X_1, \dots, X_n \sim \text{Gamma}(\alpha, \lambda)$ where α is the shape parameter and λ is the rate parameter.
2. Then, for $n = 10^4$ randomly sample from a $\text{Gamma}(\alpha = 5, \lambda = 2)$ using `rgamma()`.
3. Use `optim()` to maximize this function with respect to $\theta = (\alpha, \beta)$ and compare the results between the 5 different methods.

Solution. Let $\mathbf{x} = (x_1, \dots, x_n)$ be the realizations of $X_1, \dots, X_n$:

$$\begin{aligned} L(\theta|\mathbf{x}) &= \prod_{i=1}^n \frac{\lambda^\alpha}{\Gamma(\alpha)\beta^\alpha} x_i^{\alpha-1} e^{-\lambda x_i} \\ &= \frac{\lambda^{n\alpha}}{\Gamma(\alpha)^n} \left(\prod_{i=1}^n x_i \right)^{\alpha-1} e^{-\lambda \sum_{i=1}^n x_i} \end{aligned}$$

$$\ln(L(\boldsymbol{\theta}|\mathbf{x})) = -\ln(\Gamma(\alpha)) + n\alpha \ln(\lambda) + (\alpha - 1) \sum_{i=1}^n \ln(x_i) - \lambda \sum_{i=1}^n x_i$$

See the corresponding R codes.

Example

1. Derive the likelihood function $L(\hat{\theta}) = L(\hat{\mu}, \hat{\sigma})$ for $X_1, \dots, X_n \sim \text{Normal}(\mu, \sigma)$.
2. Then, for $n = 10^4$ randomly sample from a $\text{Normal}(\mu = 2, \sigma = 4)$ using `rnorm()`.
3. Use `optim()` to maximize this function with respect to $\theta = (\alpha, \beta)$ and compare the results between the 5 different methods.

Solution. Let $\mathbf{x} = (x_1, \dots, x_n)$ be the realizations of $X_1, \dots, X_n$:

$$L(\theta|\mathbf{x}) = (2\pi\sigma^2)^{-n/2} \exp \left\{ \frac{-1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \right\}$$
$$l(\theta|\mathbf{x}) = \frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) + \frac{-1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \mu)^2$$

See the corresponding R codes.

Optim()

Example

Use `optim()` to maximise this function with respect to x :

$$f(x, n, r, t) = \left(1 + \frac{n-r}{2}\right)x - r + \left(\frac{n-r}{2}\right)t$$

Compare the results between the 5 different methods.

Solution. Consult the R code.

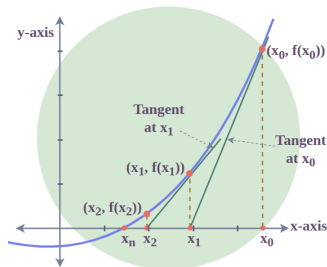
Newton-Raphson Method

Newton-Raphson Method

- The Newton-Raphson method, named after Isaac Newton and Joseph Raphson, is a root-finding algorithm that produces successively better approximations to the roots of a real-valued function.
- This method is particularly useful when it is not possible to derive a closed-form expression for the likelihood function, and consequently, the MLE.
- We will use Newton-Raphson to numerically maximise the log-likelihood.
- The method is introduced first in the one-variable case before extending to multiple variables.

Understanding Newton-Raphson - One Variable Case

- Suppose we test one value for our function, call it x_0 .
- Draw a tangent line to $f(x)$ at x_0 . This tangent line will intersect the x-axis at some fixed point $(x_1, 0)$.
- Draw another tangent line to $f(x)$ at x_1 ; the tangent line will intersect the x-axis at some point $(x_2, 0)$...
- Repeat the above steps until you find a value of x_i such that $f(x_i) = 0$.



Understanding Newton-Raphson - One Variable Case

- Recall from calculus: the Taylor polynomial of order n generated by $f(x)$ at $x = a$ is the polynomial

$$P_n(x) = f(a) + f'(a)(x - a) + \frac{f^{(2)}(a)}{2}(x - a)^2 \cdots + \frac{f^{(n)}(a)}{n!}(x - a)^n$$

- The linear approximation around x_0 is:

$$P_1(x) = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0)$$

We want $P_1(x_0) = 0$:

$$0 = f(x_0) + f'(x_0)(x - x_0) \Rightarrow x = x_0 - \frac{f(x_0)}{f'(x_0)}$$

Understanding Newton-Raphson - One Variable Case

Newton-Raphson - One Variable

In the general form, the Newton-Raphson method formula is written as follows:

$$x_n = x_{n-1} - \frac{f(x_n)}{f'(x_n)}$$

We now want to extend this to multiple variables.

Understanding Newton-Raphson - Multiple Variable Case

- Remember the **Jacobian**: “the Jacobian matrix of a vector-valued function of several variables is the matrix of all its first-order partial derivatives.”
- Let $\mathbf{x} = (x_1, x_2, \dots, x_k)$ and $\mathbf{x}_0 = (x_{01}, x_{02}, \dots, x_{0k})$
- Thus instead we can do:

$$f(\mathbf{x}) \approx f(\mathbf{x}_0) + J(\mathbf{x}_0)(\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}_0)$$

- We can solve for $\mathbf{x}$ the same way:

$$\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x}_0 - J(\mathbf{x}_0)^{-1}f(\mathbf{x}_0)$$

- Assuming the Jacobian is invertible.

Modifying Newton-Raphson for our Case

- Consider $\theta = (\theta_1, \theta_2, \dots, \theta_k)$ and some values $\theta^* = (\theta_1^*, \theta_2^*, \dots, \theta_k^*)$.
- Note that when we are solving for the MLE, we are not finding the roots. What we need to do is maximise the likelihood function $L(\theta)$.
- We know the likelihood is maximized (or minimized) when the derivative of the likelihood $\mathcal{L}(\theta^*) = \frac{\partial L(\theta)}{\partial \theta} \Big|_{\theta=\theta^*} \stackrel{set}{=} 0$.
- And now we need to consider the Hessian matrix (call $H(\cdot)$), which includes the second-order partial derivatives.
- Thus, borrowing the equation from the previous slide but adjusting it to our new situation, we now have the following:

$$\hat{\theta} = \theta^* - H(\theta^*)\mathcal{L}(\theta^*)$$

Newton-Raphson Method

Newton-Raphson for Solving the MLE

1. Choose a reasonable starting value $\theta^{(0)}$.
2. Update your estimate:

$$\theta^{(n)} = \theta^{(n-1)} - H(\theta^{(n-1)})\mathcal{L}(\theta^{(n-1)})$$

3. Terminate the algorithm when $\|\theta^{(n)} - \theta^{(n-1)}\| < \epsilon$ where ϵ is a small threshold. In this scenario, we're letting $\|\cdot\|$ represent the Euclidean norm:

$$\|\mathbf{x}\| = \sqrt{x_1^2 + x_2^2 + \cdots + x_n^2}$$

Newton-Raphson Method

Example

Consider the same log likelihood function we solved earlier for the Gamma distribution. Again, randomly sample values from $\text{Gamma}(\alpha = 5, \lambda = 2)$ and now use the Newton-Raphson Method to solve for the MLE. *Hint:* you're allowed to use `numDeriv::grad` and `numDeriv::hessian`.

Solution. Consult the R code.

Newton-Raphson Method

Example

Consider the same log likelihood function we solved earlier for the Normal distribution. Again, randomly sample values from $Normal(\mu = 2, \sigma = 4)$ and now use the Newton-Raphson Method to solve for the MLE. *Hint:* you're allowed to use `numDeriv::grad` and `numDeriv::hessian`.

Solution. Consult the R code.

Expectation-Maximization Algorithm

- Missing data arises in virtually every applied field, including machine learning, survival analysis, and the social sciences.
- The goal is still to construct good estimators despite incomplete observations.
- Rather than deriving a closed-form expression for the MLE directly, we specify an algorithm that is guaranteed to converge to the MLE.
- It is based on the idea of replacing one difficult likelihood maximisation with a sequence of easier maximisations whose limit is the answer to the original problem.

EM Algorithm

1. Let $\mathbf{Y}$ be the complete data with log likelihood $l_c(\boldsymbol{\theta}; \mathbf{Y})$.
2. Let $\mathbf{X}$ be the observed (incomplete) data with log likelihood $l(\boldsymbol{\theta}; \mathbf{X})$.
3. Choose an initial estimate $\hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(0)}$.
4. **E-step:** Calculate:

$$\mathbf{Q}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k)}) = \mathbb{E}[l_c(\boldsymbol{\theta}; \mathbf{Y}) | \hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k)}, \mathbf{X}]$$

5. **M-step:** Choose $\hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k+1)}$ to maximise $\mathbf{Q}(\boldsymbol{\theta}, \hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k)})$.
6. Iterate the **E** and **M** step until:

$$\mathbf{L}(\hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k+1)}) - \mathbf{L}(\hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k)}) < \epsilon$$

- Consider iid $X_1, \dots, X_n$ where $X_i \sim \text{Poisson}(\tau)$ for $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$. Suppose we had all of the realizations $x_2, x_3, \dots, x_n$ except for X_1 .
- **Idea:** discard X_1 as well and then just compute and maximise:

$$L(\tau | X_2 = x_2, X_3 = x_3, \dots, X_n = x_n)$$

- **Any issues with the idea?**

Example

It is still useful to compute the incomplete likelihood:

$$L(\tau | X_2 = x_2, X_3 = x_3, \dots, X_n = x_n)$$

So derive this as well as the MLE to get an initial estimate.

Solution.

$$L(\tau | \text{Data}) = \prod_{i=2}^n f(x_i) = \left[\prod_{i=2}^n \frac{e^{-\tau} (\tau)^{x_i}}{x_i!} \right] = e^{-(n-1)\tau} \tau^{\sum_{i=2}^n x_i} \prod_{i=2}^n \frac{1}{x_i!}$$

Since $\prod_{i=2}^n \frac{1}{x_i!}$ is free of τ , the derivative of this constant w.r.t τ will be 0, so we can ignore it when deriving the MLE. Then...

$$l(\tau|\text{Data}) = \ln \left(e^{-(n-1)\tau} \tau^{\sum_{i=2}^n x_i} \right) = -(n-1)\tau + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i \ln(\tau)$$

$$\frac{dl(\tau|\text{Data})}{d\tau} = -(n-1) + \frac{1}{\tau} \sum_{i=2}^n x_i$$

$$0 \stackrel{\text{set}}{=} -(n-1) + \frac{1}{\tau} \sum_{i=2}^n x_i$$

$$\hat{\tau}_{MLE} = \frac{\sum_{i=2}^n x_i}{n-1}$$

We will use this as a reference for our initial estimate $\hat{\tau}^{(0)}$.

Example

For the same example as before, compute the expectation step and then compute the maximisation step:

$$\mathbb{E} \left[l(\tau | \mathbf{x}) \mid \hat{\tau}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1} \right]$$

Solution. Again, we compute the likelihood, but now this is complete:

$$L(\tau | \mathbf{x}) = \prod_{i=1}^n f(x_i) = \left[\prod_{i=1}^n \frac{e^{-\tau} (\tau)^{x_i}}{x_i!} \right] e^{-n\tau} \tau^{\sum_{i=1}^n x_i} \prod_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{x_i!}$$

Similarly, $\prod_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{x_i!}$ does not depend on τ and can be ignored when differentiating.

Thus,

$$\ln(L(\tau|\mathbf{x})) = -n\tau + x_1 \ln(\tau) + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i \ln(\tau)$$

Let's compute the expected value:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbb{E} \left[l(\tau|\mathbf{x}) \mid \hat{\tau}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1} \right] &= \mathbb{E} \left[-n\tau + x_1 \ln(\tau) + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i \ln(\tau) \mid \hat{\tau}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1} \right] \\ &= -n\tau + \ln(\tau) \mathbb{E}[X_i \mid \hat{\tau}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}] + \ln(\tau) \sum_{i=2}^n x_i\end{aligned}$$

$$\mathbf{Q}(\tau, \hat{\tau}^{(k)}) = -n\tau + \ln(\tau) \hat{\tau}^k + \ln(\tau) \sum_{i=2}^n x_i$$

Now we can take the derivative (maximisation step):

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{Q}(\tau, \hat{\tau}^{(k)})}{\partial \tau} = -n + \frac{\hat{\tau}^k}{\tau} + \frac{1}{\tau} \sum_{i=2}^n x_i$$

$$0 \stackrel{\text{set}}{=} -n + \frac{\hat{\tau}^k}{\tau} + \frac{1}{\tau} \sum_{i=2}^n x_i$$

$$n\tau = \hat{\tau}^k + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i$$

$$\hat{\tau}^{(k+1)} = \frac{\hat{\tau}^k + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i}{n}$$

For $k = 1, 2, \dots$

EM Algorithm

Example

Explicitly code up the EM algorithm for the case we just considered.

Solution. Consult the R code.

EM Algorithm

Example

Consider $X_i \stackrel{i.i.d}{\sim} \text{Normal}(\mu, \sigma^2)$ where $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ where $n = 10^4$. Suppose we had all of the realisations except for one of them, let's say X_1 . Suppose σ^2 is known, but not the mean μ . Construct the EM algorithm and code it in R.

Solution. We begin by finding $\hat{\mu}^{(0)}$ by completing the incomplete log likelihood. Note that,

$$L(\mu|\mathbf{x}_{-1}) = (2\pi\sigma^2)^{-(n-1)/2} \exp \left\{ \frac{-1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \right\}$$
$$l(\mu|\mathbf{x}_{-1}) = \frac{-(n-1)}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \left\{ \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \right\}$$

Next, we need to take the derivative.

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{d l(\mu|\mathbf{x}_{-1})}{d\mu} &= -\frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)(2)(-1) \\ 0 &\stackrel{\text{set}}{=} \frac{1}{\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n x_i - (n-1)\mu \\ \hat{\mu}^{(k)} &:= \frac{\sum_{i=2}^n x_i}{n-1}\end{aligned}$$

Note that the complete log-likelihood is:

$$\begin{aligned}l_c(\mu|\mathbf{x}) &= \frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \\ &= \frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} (x_1 - \mu)^2 - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2\end{aligned}$$

Expectation step:

$$\begin{aligned} & \mathbb{E}[l_c(\mu|\mathbf{x}) \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2] \\ &= \mathbb{E} \left[\frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2}(x_1 - \mu)^2 - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2 \right] \\ &= \frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \mathbb{E} \left[(x_1 - \mu)^2 \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2 \right] - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \end{aligned}$$

Note that:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbb{E} \left[(x_1 - \mu)^2 \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2 \right] &= \mathbb{E} \left[x_1^2 - 2\mu x_1 + \mu^2 \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2 \right] \\ &= \mathbb{E} \left[x_1^2 \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2 \right] - 2\mu \mathbb{E} \left[x_1 \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2 \right] + \mu^2 \\ &= \sigma^2 + (\hat{\mu}^{(k)})^2 - 2\mu \hat{\mu}^{(k)} + \mu^2 \end{aligned}$$

Thus,

$$\begin{aligned}\mathbb{E}[l_c(\mu|\mathbf{x}) \mid \hat{\mu}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}, \sigma^2] \\ = \frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \left[\sigma^2 + (\hat{\mu}^{(k)})^2 - 2\mu\hat{\mu}^{(k)} + \mu^2 \right] - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2\end{aligned}$$

And so we begin the maximisation step:

$$\begin{aligned}Q(\mu, \hat{\mu}^{(k)}) &:= \frac{-n}{2} \ln(2\pi\sigma^2) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \left[\sigma^2 + (\hat{\mu}^{(k)})^2 - 2\mu\hat{\mu}^{(k)} + \mu^2 \right] - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)^2 \\ \frac{\partial Q(\mu, \hat{\mu}^{(k)})}{\partial \mu} &= \frac{-1}{2\sigma^2} (-2\hat{\mu}^{(k)}) + \frac{-1}{2\sigma^2} (2\mu) - \frac{1}{2\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)(2)(-1) \\ &= \frac{\hat{\mu}^{(k)}}{\sigma^2} - \frac{\mu}{\sigma^2} + \frac{1}{\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)\end{aligned}$$

EM Algorithm

Setting equal to 0 to find the maximum of μ (verification that this is a maximum via the second derivative is left as an exercise):

$$0 = \frac{\hat{\mu}^{(k)}}{\sigma^2} - \frac{\mu}{\sigma^2} + \frac{1}{\sigma^2} \sum_{i=2}^n (x_i - \mu)$$

$$0 = \hat{\mu}^{(k)} - \mu + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i - (n-1)\mu$$

$$\mu = \frac{\hat{\mu}^{(k)} + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i}{n}$$

And thus we set:

$$\hat{\mu}^{(k+1)} := \frac{\hat{\mu}^{(k)} + \sum_{i=2}^n x_i}{n}$$

Consult the corresponding R codes.

Some remarks regarding the EM algorithm:

- Typically, the maximization step, i.e., maximizing $\mathbb{E}[l_c(\boldsymbol{\theta}; \mathbf{Y}) | \hat{\boldsymbol{\theta}}^{(k)}, \mathbf{X}]$ is VERY difficult and cannot be done manually. Thus, we tend to rely on numerical methods, such as Newton-Raphson, to do this!
- In practice, the maximisation step often cannot be completed in closed form. For the purposes of examinations, questions will either:
 - Ask you to derive parts UP until the expectation step. No maximisation explicitly required; I may ask you “what could you do to maximise this if you had the tools?”
 - Give you a case that is possible to derive, similar to practice problems and lecture slides.

EM Algorithm

Let's consider the second case – that is, we will not be able to find closed-form expressions, but we can still compute these things numerically.

Example

Consider $X_i \stackrel{i.i.d}{\sim} \text{Gamma}(\alpha, \lambda)$ where $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$ where $n = 100$. Suppose we had all of the realisations except for one of them, let's say X_1 . Suppose both α (the shape parameter) and λ (the rate parameter) are unknown. Construct the EM algorithm and code it in R.

(Exercise for you!) Note that the complete log-likelihood is:

$$l_c(\alpha, \lambda | \mathbf{x}) = \alpha n \ln(\lambda) - n \ln(\Gamma(\alpha)) + (\alpha - 1) \sum_{i=1}^n \ln(x_i) - \lambda \sum_{i=1}^n x_i,$$

The incomplete log likelihood is then:

$$l(\alpha, \lambda | \mathbf{x}_{-1}) = \alpha(n-1) \ln(\lambda) - (n-1) \ln(\Gamma(\alpha)) + (\alpha-1) \sum_{i=2}^n \ln(x_i) - \lambda \sum_{i=2}^n x_i.$$

Note that we will use `optim()` to find a suitable starting point for $\hat{\alpha}^{(0)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(0)}$. (You could also use Newton-Raphson if you prefer.) Now, for the expectation step:

$$\begin{aligned} & \mathbb{E}[l_c(\alpha, \lambda | \mathbf{x}) | \hat{\alpha}^{(k)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}] \\ &= \alpha n \ln(\lambda) - n \ln(\Gamma(\alpha)) + (\alpha-1) \sum_{i=2}^n \ln(x_i) - \lambda \sum_{i=2}^n x_i \\ &+ \mathbb{E}[(\alpha-1) \ln(x_1) | \hat{\alpha}^{(k)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}] + \mathbb{E}[\lambda x_1 | \hat{\alpha}^{(k)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}] \end{aligned}$$

Note that,

$$\mathbb{E}[\lambda x_1 \mid \hat{\alpha}^{(k)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(k)}, \mathbf{x}_{-1}] = \lambda \frac{\hat{\alpha}^{(k)}}{\hat{\lambda}^{(k)}}$$

For $Y \sim \text{Gamma}(\alpha, \lambda)$ there is a “nice” closed form for $\mathbb{E}[\log(Y)]$. However, this involves a weird calculus trick and I’m LAZY.

Instead, Monte Carlo methods (Unit 2) can be used to approximate this quantity.

Generate $Y_j \sim \text{Gamma}(\hat{\alpha}^{(k)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(k)})$ where $j = 1, \dots, m$ and m represents our MC sample size. Then, using SLLN let:

$$\mathbb{E}[\log(X_1)] \approx \frac{1}{m} \sum_{j=1}^m \log(Y_j)$$

Hence, now we want to optimize to find the value of α, λ of the following expression:

$$\begin{aligned} Q(\alpha, \lambda, \hat{\alpha}^{(k)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(k)}) = & \alpha n \ln(\lambda) - n \ln(\Gamma(\alpha)) + (\alpha - 1) \sum_{i=2}^n \ln(x_i) - \lambda \sum_{i=2}^n x_i \\ & + (\alpha - 1) \frac{1}{m} \sum_{j=1}^m \log(y_j) + \lambda \frac{\hat{\alpha}^{(k)}}{\hat{\lambda}^{(k)}} \end{aligned}$$

Similar to how we found the initial values for $\hat{\alpha}^{(0)}, \hat{\lambda}^{(0)}$, we can use `optim()` to do the maximization step for us due to a lack of having a closed form.

Check the remaining R codes.